

Introduction



Dynamical Systems is any system that evolves in time.² This encompasses quite a few phenomena familiar to us. Of course, at this level of generality, there exists a manifold of very relevant questions that can be asked. In some sense the type of questions investigated through the centuries has shaped what today is meant by Dynamical Systems. Although this is not the proper occasion for an historical excursus, it is worthwhile to stress that the first Dynamical Systems widely investigated have been the planetary motions. Not surprisingly the main emphasis in such investigations was accurate prediction of future positions. Nevertheless, exactly from the effort of predicting accurately future motions stemmed the consciousness of the existence of very serious obstructions to such a program. Specifically, in the work of Poincaré [72] appeared for the first time the phenomena of instability with respect to initial conditions, a central concept in the understanding of modern Dynamical Systems. In fact, we will see briefly that such instability phenomena can be already observed in very simple systems—such as a periodically forced pendulum—that exhibit a so called “homoclinic tangle” [67, 70].

The realization that many relevant systems are very sensitive with respect to the initial conditions dealt a strong blow to the idea that it is always possible to predict the future behavior of a system,³ yet the work of many physicist (and we must mention at least Boltzmann) and mathematicians (in particular, the so called *Russian School* with people like Kolmogorov, Anosov, Sinai, ...) led to the understanding that, although precise predictions were not possible, it was possible and, at times, even easy to make statistical predictions. The concept of statistical properties of a Dynamical System is exactly at the base

²That is, a set X consisting of all possible configurations of the system and maps $\phi^t : X \rightarrow X$ associating to each configuration $x \in X$ the configuration $\phi^t x$ representing the configuration reached by the system at time t when starting from the configuration x at time 0.

³Without going to the extreme of some authors of the eighteen century arguing that, given the present state of the universe, a sufficiently powerful mind (maybe God) could predict all the future. Think, more reasonably, of an isolated system and imagine to use some numerical scheme to try to solve the equations of motion for an arbitrarily long time with an arbitrary precision.

of the material treated in this book.

This introduction is dedicated to making precise, in a simple example, the nature of the above mentioned instability.

0.1 A pendulum—The model and a question

We will study a seemingly trivial example: a forced pendulum. To be more concrete, let us imagine a pendulum of length $l = 1$ meter, mass $m = 1$ kilogram and remember that the gravitational constant (on the earth surface) is approximately $g = 9.8$ meters per second squared. The Hamiltonian of the system reads [41]

$$H = \frac{1}{2l^2m}p^2 - mgl \cos \theta, \quad (0.1.1)$$

where θ is the angle, counted counterclockwise, formed by the pendulum with the vertical direction ($\theta = 0$ corresponds to the configuration in which the pendulum assumes the lowest possible position) and $p = l^2m\dot{\theta}$ is the associated momentum. Thus (θ, p) are the coordinates of the pendulum. The phase space $\mathcal{M}$ where the motion takes place consists of $\mathbb{T}^1 \times \mathbb{R}$.

The equations of motion associated to the Hamiltonian (0.1.1) represent the motion of an ideal pendulum in the vacuum feeling only the force of gravity. Clearly, this is an highly idealized situation with no counterpart in reality. Every system interacts with the rest of the universe. Thus the only hope for the idea of *isolated systems* to be fruitful is that the interaction with the exterior does not affect significantly the behavior of the system. Let us try to see what this can mean in reality.

The first issue is clearly friction. Let us imagine that we have set up the pendulum in a reasonable vacuum and reduced the friction at the suspension point so that the loss of energy is negligible on the time scale of few minutes. Does such a system behaves as an isolated pendulum within such a time frame? One problem is that the suspension point is still in contact with the rest of the world. If the pendulum is in a lab not so distant from a street (a rather common situation), then the traffic will induce some vibrations. It is then natural to ask: what happens if the suspension point of the pendulum vibrates?

In fact, nothing much happens for small pendulum oscillations (this is a consequence of Komogorv-Arnold-Moser theory, an highly non trivial fact), but if we start close to the vertical configuration it is conceivable that a motion that would be oscillatory for the unperturbed pendulum could gather enough energy from the external force as to change its nature and become rotatory, this would create a substantial difference between the unperturbed (ideal) and the perturbed (more realistic) case.

This is exactly the question we want to address:

Question: *Can we really predict the motion for a reasonable time if the initial condition is close to the vertical ?*

We will assume that the frequency of vibration ω is of the order of one hertz⁴ and the amplitude of the oscillations is very very small. Hence, as good mathematicians, we will call such an amplitude ε . In other words, the suspension point moves vertically according to the law $\varepsilon \cos \omega t$.

The Hamiltonian of the vibrating pendulum is then given by (see Problem 0.1)

$$H_\varepsilon = \frac{1}{2l^2m}p^2 - mgl \cos \theta - \varepsilon m\omega^2 l \cos \omega t \cos \theta. \quad (0.1.2)$$

Accordingly the equation of motion are (see Problem 0.1)⁵

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{\theta} &= \frac{\partial H_\varepsilon}{\partial p} = \frac{p}{l^2m} \\ \dot{p} &= -\frac{\partial H_\varepsilon}{\partial \theta} = -mgl \sin \theta - \varepsilon m\omega^2 l \cos \omega t \sin \theta. \end{aligned} \quad (0.1.3)$$

It is well known that the function H is an integral of motion for the solutions of (0.1.3) for $\varepsilon = 0$, that is: H computed along the solutions of the associated equations of motion is constant.⁶ The physical meaning of H is the energy of the system. Clearly, the energy H_ε is not constant in general since the vibration can add or subtract energy to the pendulum.

0.2 Instability—unperturbed case

Let us first recall few basic facts about the unperturbed pendulum. The equation of motions are given by the (0.1.3) setting $\varepsilon = 0$. It is obvious that there exists two fixed points: $(0,0)$ which corresponds to the pendulum at rest and is clearly stable, and $(\pi,0)$ which corresponds to the pendulum in the vertical position and is certainly unstable. Our interest here is to analyze the motions that start close to the unstable equilibrium and to make more precise what it is meant by *instability*.

⁴One hertz corresponds to one oscillation every 2π seconds, a typical vibration transmitted through the ground at a reasonable distance has a frequency of this order of magnitude.

⁵Here we write the Hamilton equations associated to the Hamiltonian, see [5, 41] for the general theory.

⁶See [5, 41] for this general fact or do Problem 0.4 for the simple case at hand.

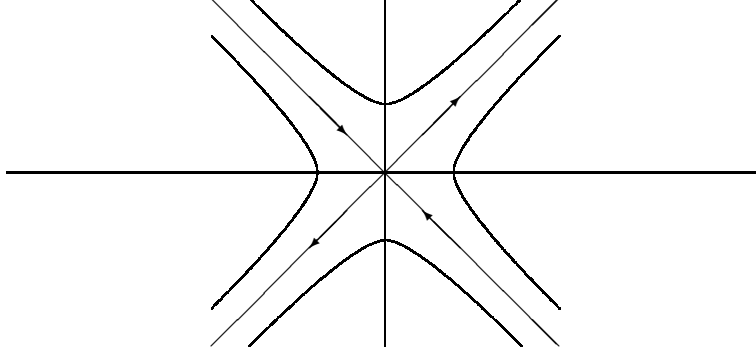


Figure 0.1: Unstable fixed point (phase portrait)

0.2.1 Unstable equilibrium

If we want to have an idea of how the motion looks like near a fixed point the natural first step is to study the linearization of the equation of motion near such a point. In our case, using the coordinates $(\theta_0, p) = (\theta - \pi, p)$, they look like

$$\begin{aligned}\dot{\theta}_0 &= \frac{p}{l^2 m} \\ \dot{p} &= mgl\theta_0.\end{aligned}\tag{0.2.1}$$

Let $\omega_p = \sqrt{\frac{g}{l}}$, it is immediate to verify that the general solution of (0.2.1) is

$$(\theta_0(t), p(t)) = (\alpha e^{\omega_p t} + \beta e^{-\omega_p t}, ml^2 \omega_p \{\alpha e^{\omega_p t} - \beta e^{-\omega_p t}\}),$$

where α and β are determined by the initial conditions. Note that if the initial condition has the form $\alpha(1, ml\sqrt{gl})$ it will evolve as $\alpha e^{\omega_p t}(1, ml\sqrt{gl})$. While if the initial condition is of the form $\beta(1, -ml\sqrt{gl})$ it will evolve as $\beta e^{-\omega_p t}(1, -ml\sqrt{gl})$. In other words the directions $(1, ml\sqrt{gl})$ and $(1, -ml\sqrt{gl})$ are invariant for the linear dynamics. The first direction is expanded (and because of this is called *unstable direction*) while the second is contracted (*stable direction*).

Let us imagine to start the motion from an initial condition of the type $(\pi + \theta_0, 0)$, $\theta_0 \in [-\delta, \delta]$, where $\delta \leq 10^{-4}$ represents the precision with which we are able to set the initial condition (one tenth of a millimeter); what will happen under the linear dynamics?

Our initial condition correspond to choosing, at time zero, $\alpha = \beta \leq \frac{\delta}{2}$. As time goes on the coefficient of β becomes exponentially small while the coefficient of α increases exponentially, thus a good approximation of the

position of the pendulum after some time is given by

$$\theta_0(t) \approx \alpha e^{\omega_p t}. \quad (0.2.2)$$

Since $\omega_p \approx 3.13 \text{ seconds}^{-1}$, it follows that after about 2.5 seconds the position of the pendulum can be anywhere up to a distance of about 10 centimeters from the unstable position.

This means that the unstable position is really unstable and if we try, as best as we can, to put the pendulum in the unstable equilibrium (always imagining that the friction has been properly reduced) it will typically fall after few seconds and it will fall in a direction that we are not able to predict (since it depend on the sign of δ , our unknown mistake). Nevertheless, after the ideal pendulum starts falling in one direction the subsequent motion is completely predictable, as we will see shortly.

An obvious objection to the above analysis is that I did not show that the linearized equation describes a motion really close to the one of the original equations. The answer to this question is particularly simple in this setting and is addressed in the next subsection.

0.2.2 The unstable trajectories (separatrices)

Given the already noted fact that, for $\varepsilon = 0$, H is a constant of motion, the phase space $\mathcal{M}$ is naturally foliated in the level curves of H , on which the motion must take place. This allows us to obtain a fairly accurate picture of the motions of the unperturbed pendulum. In fact, the level curves are given by the equations

$$\frac{p^2}{2l^2m} - mgl \cos \theta = E$$

where E is the energy of the motion. It is easy to see that $E = -mgl$ corresponds to the stable fixed point $(\theta, p) = (0, 0)$; $-mgl < E < mgl$ corresponds to oscillations of amplitude $\arccos \left[\frac{E}{mgl} \right]$; $E > mgl$ corresponds to rotatory motions of the pendulum. The last case $E = mgl$ is of particular interest to us: obviously it corresponds to the unstable fixed point $(\pi, 0)$, yet there are other two solution that travel on the two curves

$$p = \pm ml \sqrt{2lg(1 + \cos \theta)}.$$

This two curves are the ones that separate the oscillatory motions from the rotatory ones and, for this reasons, are called *separatrices*. It is very important to understand the motion along such trajectories, luckily the two differential equations

$$\dot{\theta} = \pm \sqrt{2\frac{g}{l}(1 + \cos \theta)}. \quad (0.2.3)$$

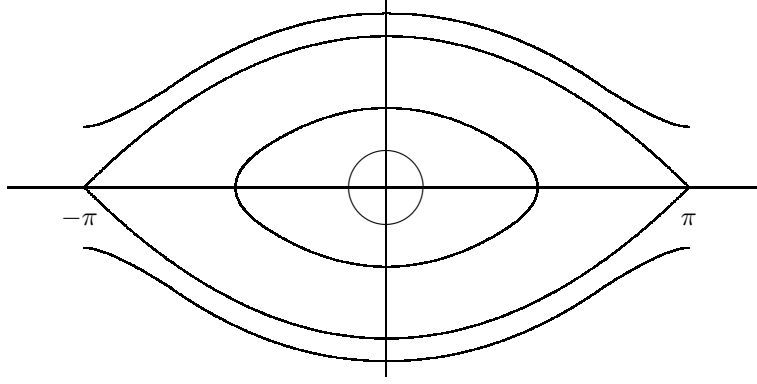


Figure 0.2: Unperturbed pendulum (phase portrait)

can be integrated explicitly (see Problem 0.5) yielding, for $\theta(0) = 0$,

$$\theta(t) = 4 \arctan e^{\pm \omega_p t} - \pi. \quad (0.2.4)$$

These orbits are asymptotic to the unstable fixed point both at $t \rightarrow +\infty$ and at $t \rightarrow -\infty$ and, for $|t|$ large, agree with the linear behaviour of section 0.2.1. This situation is somewhat atypical as we will see briefly.

0.3 The perturbed case

0.3.1 Reduction to a map

The motion of the above system takes place on the cylinder $\mathcal{M} = S^1 \times \mathbb{R}$. By the theorem of existence and uniqueness for the solutions of differential equations [31, 6] follows immediately the possibility to define the maps $\phi_\varepsilon^t : \mathcal{M} \rightarrow \mathcal{M}$ associating to the point (θ, p) the point reached by the solution of (0.1.3) at time t , when starting at time 0 from the initial condition (θ, p) . In such a way we define the flow ϕ_ε^t associated to the (0.1.3).

Clearly $\phi_\varepsilon^0(\theta, p) = (\theta, p)$, that is the map corresponding at time zero is the identity. Moreover, if $\varepsilon = 0$ the system is autonomous (the vector field does not depend on the time) hence the flow defines a group: for each $t, s \in \mathbb{R}$

$$\phi_0^{t+s}(\theta, p) = \phi_0^t(\phi_0^s(\theta, p)).$$

This corresponds to the obvious fact that the motion for a time $t + s$ can be obtained first as the motion from time 0 to time s , and then pretending that the time s is the initial time and following the motion for time t .

Of course, the above fact does not hold anymore when $\varepsilon \neq 0$. In this case, the maps ϕ_ε^t depend from our choice of the initial time (if we define them by starting from time 1 instead then time 0, in general we obtain different maps). Nevertheless, due to the fact that the external force is periodic something can be saved of the above nice property.

Let us define the map $T_\varepsilon : \mathcal{M} \rightarrow \mathcal{M}$ by

$$T_\varepsilon = \phi_\varepsilon^{\frac{2\pi}{\omega}},$$

then (see Problem 0.3), for each $n \in \mathbb{Z}$,

$$T_\varepsilon^n = \phi_\varepsilon^{\frac{2n\pi}{\omega}}. \quad (0.3.1)$$

The interest of (0.3.1) is that, for many purposes, we can study the map T_ε instead than the more complex object ϕ_ε^t . Morally, it means that if we look at the system *stroboscopically*, that is only at the times $\frac{2\pi}{\omega}n$ with $n \in \mathbb{Z}$, then it behaves like an autonomous (time independent) system.⁷ Another interesting fact is that the flow ϕ_ε^t (and hence also the map T_ε) is area preserving (see Problem 0.7).⁸

0.3.2 Perturbed pendulum, $\varepsilon \neq 0$

The situation for the case $\varepsilon \neq 0$ is more complex and no easy way exists to study these motions.

As a general strategy, to study the behavior of a system (in our case the map T_ε) it is a good idea to start by investigating simple cases and then move on from there. In our systems the simplest motion consists of the equilibrium solutions. These are the time independent solutions.⁹ Because of the special type of perturbation chosen the fixed points of the system for the case $\varepsilon = 0$ remain unchanged when $\varepsilon \neq 0$ (see Problem 0.8 for a brief discussion of a more general case).

Next, we can study the infinitesimal nature of the fixed points. It is natural to expect that the nature of the two fixed points does not change if ε is small, yet to verify this requires some checking. We will discuss explicitly only the fixed point $(\pi, 0)$.

The first step is to make precise the sense in which the case $\varepsilon \neq 0$ is a perturbation of the case $\varepsilon = 0$. This can be achieved by obtaining an explicit

⁷This is a very simple case of a very fruitful and general strategy: to look at the system only when some special event happens—in our case at each time in which the suspension point has its maximum height. See 1.2 if you want to know more.

⁸This also is a special instance of a more general fact: the Hamiltonian nature of the system, see [41], [5] if you want to know more.

⁹That is, equilibrium solutions for the map T_ε . These are *periodic* solutions for the flows of period $\frac{2\pi}{\omega}$. In fact, $T_\varepsilon x = x$ means $\phi_\varepsilon^{\frac{2\pi}{\omega}} x = x$.

estimate on the size of

$$R_\varepsilon = \varepsilon^{-1}(T_0 - T_\varepsilon).$$

Let $z(t) = (z_1(t), z_2(t)) = \phi_0^t(x) - \phi_\varepsilon^t(x)$, then substituting in (0.1.3) and subtracting the general case to the case $\varepsilon = 0$ it yields

$$\begin{aligned} |\dot{z}_1| &\leq \frac{|z_2|}{ml^2} \\ |\dot{z}_2| &\leq mgl|z_1| + \varepsilon m\omega^2 l. \end{aligned}$$

In order to get better estimates it is convenient to define the new variables $\zeta_1 = ml^2\omega_p z_1$ and $\zeta_2 = z_2$. In these new variables the preceding equations read

$$\begin{aligned} |\dot{\zeta}_1| &\leq \omega_p |\zeta_2| \\ |\dot{\zeta}_2| &\leq \omega_p |\zeta_1| + \varepsilon m\omega^2 l. \end{aligned}$$

Which implies $\|\dot{\zeta}\| \leq \omega_p \|\zeta\| + \varepsilon m\omega^2 l$. Taking into account that, in our situation, $ml^2\omega_p > 1$, it follows (see Problem 0.9)

$$\|R\|_{C^0} \leq \frac{ml\omega^2}{\omega_p} (e^{2\pi \frac{\omega_p}{\omega}} - 1).$$

Unfortunately, the above norm does not suffice for our future needs. We will see quite soon that it is necessary to estimate also the first and second derivatives of R , that is the C^2 norm.

To do so the easiest way is to use the differentiability with respect to the initial conditions of the solutions of our differential equation (see [6, 31]). Fixing any point $x \in \mathcal{M}$ and calling $\xi^\varepsilon(t) = d_x \phi_\varepsilon^t \xi(0)$ we readily obtain:¹⁰

$$\begin{aligned} \dot{\xi}_1^\varepsilon &= \frac{\xi_2^\varepsilon}{l^2 m} \\ \dot{\xi}_2^\varepsilon &= -mgl \cos \theta \xi_1^\varepsilon - \varepsilon m\omega^2 l \cos \omega t \cos \theta \xi_1^\varepsilon \end{aligned} \tag{0.3.2}$$

One can then estimate the C^1 norm of R by estimating $\|\xi^\varepsilon(\frac{2\pi}{\omega}) - \xi^0(\frac{2\pi}{\omega})\|$, since $\xi^\varepsilon(\frac{2\pi}{\omega}) = D_{(\theta,p)} T_\varepsilon \xi^\varepsilon(0)$. Analogously one can proceed to estimate the second derivatives.

¹⁰The vector $\xi_\varepsilon(t)$ is nothing else than the derivative $\frac{d\phi_\varepsilon^t(x+s\xi(0))}{ds}|_{s=0}$, the following equation is then obtained by exchanging the derivative with respect to t with the derivative with respect to s .

Doing so one obtains, for ε small enough,¹¹

$$\begin{aligned} \|R\|_{C^1} &\leq \frac{2ml\omega^2}{\omega_p} e^{3\pi\frac{\omega_p}{\omega}} := d_1 \\ \|T_0\|_{C^2} &\leq ?? := C_2 \\ \|R\|_{C^2} &\leq ?? := d_2 \end{aligned} \tag{0.3.3}$$

0.4 Infinitesimal behavior (linearization)

As a first application of the above considerations let us study the linearization of T_ε at $x_f = (\pi, 0)$. From (0.3.2) follows (see Problem 0.11)

$$\begin{aligned} D_{x_f} T_0 &= \begin{pmatrix} \cosh \frac{2\pi\omega_p}{\omega} & \frac{\sinh \frac{2\pi\omega_p}{\omega}}{ml^2\omega_p} \\ ml^2\omega_p \sinh \frac{2\pi\omega_p}{\omega} & \cosh \frac{2\pi\omega_p}{\omega} \end{pmatrix} \\ D_{x_f} T_\varepsilon &= D_{x_f} T_0 + \mathcal{O}(\varepsilon) \end{aligned} \tag{0.4.1}$$

The eigenvalues of $D_{x_f} T_\varepsilon$ are then $\lambda_\varepsilon = e^{\pm \frac{2\pi\omega_p}{\omega}} + \mathcal{O}(\varepsilon)$, λ_ε^{-1} .¹²

Clearly, if ε is sufficiently small, then $\lambda_\varepsilon > 1$. This means that the hyperbolic nature of the unstable fixed point remains unchanged under small perturbations (see Problem 0.12 for a case when the perturbation is not so small).¹³

If one does a similar analysis at the fixed point $(0, 0)$ one finds that the eigenvalues have modulus one: that is the infinitesimal motion is a rotation around the fixed point, exactly as in the $\varepsilon = 0$ case.

Hence the comments made at the end of subsection 0.2.1 for the unperturbed pendulum hold for the perturbed pendulum as well. Only now there is no longer an integral of motion (the energy) that controls globally the behavior of the system.

Imagining that the map is linear (which is clearly false but, as we will see, qualitatively not so wrong) this would mean that the distance between two trajectories can be expanded by almost a factor 23 in a second. Initial conditions that are δ close at time zero will be about 23δ far apart after 1 second. If such a state of affair could persist (and we will see it may) after one

¹¹The following bounds are not sharp, working more one can obtain better estimates but this would not make much of a difference in the sequel.

¹²This follows by the fact that the eigenvalues of $D_{x_f} T_0$ are $e^{\pm \frac{2\pi\omega_p}{\omega}}$, a simple perturbation theory of matrices (see Problem 0.10) and the already mentioned fact that the map T_ε is area preserving, thus the determinant of its derivative must be one.

¹³As we will see later in detail, hyperbolicity means that there is a direction in which the map expands (the eigenvector v_ε^u associated to the eigenvalue λ_ε) and a direction in which the map contracts (the eigenvector v_ε^s associated to the eigenvalue λ_ε^{-1}).

minute the two configurations would differ roughly by a factor $10^{80}\delta$, which means that not even knowing the initial condition plus or minus a quark could we predict the final one. This is certainly a rather worrisome perspective but much more work it is needed to decide if this may be indeed the case.

0.5 Local behavior (Hadamard-Perron Theorem)

The next step is to try to go from the above infinitesimal analysis to a local picture in a small neighborhood of the fixed points.

It is natural to expect that the two fixed points are still stable and unstable respectively, yet this is a far from trivial fact.

The stability of the point $(0,0)$ can be proven by invoking the so called KAM Theorem (this exceeds the scope of the present book and we will not discuss such matters, see [41] for such a discussion).¹⁴

The study of the local behavior around the point x_f is instead a bit easier and can be performed by applying the Hadamard-Perron Theorem 3.3.2 to conclude that, in a neighborhood of $(\pi,0)$, there exists two curves $x_\varepsilon^u(s) = (\theta_\varepsilon^u(s), p_\varepsilon^u(s))$, $x_\varepsilon^s(s)$ that are invariant with respect to the map T_ε . Namely, $T_\varepsilon x_\varepsilon^s([-\delta, \delta]) \subset x_\varepsilon^s([-\delta, \delta])$ and $T_\varepsilon^{-1} x_\varepsilon^u([-\delta, \delta]) \subset x_\varepsilon^u([-\delta, \delta])$ for all δ smaller than some δ_0 independent on ε ; this are called the local stable and unstable manifold of zero, respectively. Essentially δ_0 is determined by the requirement that the non-linear part of T_ε be smaller than the linear part, for example

$$\inf_{\|v\|=1} \|D_{(\pi,0)} T_0 v\| \geq 10 \sup_{\|x-(\pi,0)\| \leq \delta_0} \|D_x^2 T_0\|$$

will do.

Clearly, for $\varepsilon = 0$ $x^s = x^u$ and it coincides with the homoclinic orbit of the unperturbed pendulum. In addition, there exists $c_*, a > 0$, independent on ε , such that

$$\|T_\varepsilon^{-n} x_\varepsilon^u(s)\| \leq c_* e^{-an} \|x_\varepsilon^u(s)\| \quad \text{and} \quad \|x_\varepsilon^u - x_0^u\| \leq c_* \varepsilon. \quad (0.5.1)$$

and the analogous for the stable manifold, only forward in time. We have so obtained a local picture of the behavior of the map T_ε , yet this does not suffice

¹⁴In some sense this implies that we can indeed predict the motion for an extremely long time if we consider only oscillations close to the configuration $(0,0)$, so in that case the assumption that the pendulum is isolated is legitimate. Yet, this depends on the precision we are interested in and tends to degenerate if the amplitude of the oscillations is rather large. A complete analysis would be a very complicated matter but we will have an idea of the type of problems that can arise by considering extremely large oscillations, close to a full rotation of the pendulum.

to answer to our original question. To do so we need to follow the motion for at least a full oscillation: this requires really a global information.

To gain a more global knowledge we can try to construct larger invariant set for the map T_ε . A natural way to do so is to iterate: define $W^u = \cup_{n=0}^\infty T_\varepsilon^n x^u([- \delta_0, \delta_0])$. Since $T_\varepsilon x^u([- \delta_0, \delta_0]) \supset x^u([- \delta_0, \delta_0])$, it is clear that each time we iterate we get a longer and longer curve. The set W^u is then clearly a manifold and it is called the global unstable manifold.¹⁵

Let us see how much we can control such a growth process. Given $x, y \in \mathcal{M}$ we have

$$\|T_\varepsilon x - T_0 y\| \leq \varepsilon \|R_\varepsilon\|_{C^0} + \|DT_0\| \|x - y\|.$$

Accordingly in a ball of radius δ_0 around $(\pi, 0)$ we have

$$\|T_\varepsilon x - T_0 y\| \leq d_1 \varepsilon + 2\lambda_0 \|x - y\|.$$

On the other hand, in the same neighborhood, if x belongs to the unstable manifold

$$\|T_\varepsilon x\| \geq \frac{\lambda_0}{2} \|x\|.$$

Thus

$$\|T_\varepsilon^n x_\varepsilon^u(s) - T_0^n x_0^u(s)\| \leq \varepsilon d_1 \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} (2\lambda_0)^i \leq 2d_1 \varepsilon (2\lambda_0)^n.$$

This means that if we want a distance between the perturbed and the unperturbed unstable manifold let us say smaller of $2d_1 L \varepsilon$, for some L , we can iterate at most $(\ln L)/(\ln 2\lambda_0)$. This means that we can grow the manifold for a length of at least $\delta_0 L^a$, $a := \frac{\ln \lambda_0/2}{\ln 2\lambda_0}$, and still keep a strong control on the position of the unstable manifold. It is then enough to choose $L := (2\pi)^{1/a} \delta_0^{-2/a}$ to insure that the perturbed unstable manifold is very close to the unperturbed one until the separatrix does not enter again in the δ_0 neighborhood of $(\pi, 0)$.

The global manifold, as the name clearly states, it is a global object: it carries information on the dynamics for arbitrarily long times. Yet, the procedure by which it has been defined is far from constructive and the truth is that, besides the sketchy considerations above, at the moment we know very little of it. The next step is to gain some more detailed understanding of a large portion of W^u .

¹⁵Applying the above procedure to the unperturbed problem one obtains the full separatrix.

0.6 A more global understanding (the Melnikov method)

From the above considerations follows that the stable and unstable manifolds $x_\varepsilon^s(s)$, $x_\varepsilon^u(s) = (\theta_\varepsilon^u(s), p_\varepsilon^u(s))$ are ε close to the homoclinic orbit of the unperturbed pendulum. Let us call $x_0(t) = (\theta_0(t), p_0(t))$, $\theta_0(0) = 0$ such an orbit.

Clearly, we can assume, without loss of generality $\theta^u(s) = \theta^s(s) = \theta_0(s)$ (this corresponds simply to fixing the parameterization of the curve).

It is quite natural to ask what this does mean for the original flow. Clearly we can consider the orbit associated to any point on the above manifolds. Doing so we can write

$$\begin{aligned} x_\varepsilon^u(s, t) &= \phi_\varepsilon^t x_\varepsilon^u(s) = x_0(t + s) + \varepsilon x_1^u(s, t) \\ x_\varepsilon^s(s, t) &= \phi_\varepsilon^t x_\varepsilon^s(s) = x_0(t + s) + \varepsilon x_1^s(s, t). \end{aligned} \quad (0.6.1)$$

The above are the unstable and stable manifolds for the flow.¹⁶

Once we do this, it turns out to be specially smart to consider the distance between x^u and x^s in the orthogonal direction to x_0 , clearly such a direction is given by ∇H , where H is the Hamiltonian of the unperturbed pendulum.¹⁷

It is then convenient to define

$$\Delta(s, t) = \varepsilon^{-1} \langle x_\varepsilon^u(s, t) - x_\varepsilon^s(s, t), \nabla_{x_0(t+s)} H \rangle =: \Delta^u(s, t) - \Delta^s(s, t).$$

Using (0.1.3) we can differentiate the above quantity with respect to

¹⁶Actually, they correspond to two dimensional surfaces (parametrized by s and t). Such surfaces are called *weak* stable and unstable manifolds since they contain the stable and unstable direction proper and the flow direction.

¹⁷See Problem 0.13

time.¹⁸

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{d\Delta^u}{dt}(s, t) &= \varepsilon^{-1} \langle \dot{x}^u - \dot{x}_0, \nabla_{x_0} H \rangle + \langle x_1^u, D_{x_0}^2 H \dot{x}_0 \rangle \\
&= \varepsilon^{-1} \langle J \nabla_{x^u} H_\varepsilon, \nabla_{x_0} H \rangle + \langle x_1^u, D_{x_0}^2 H \dot{x}_0 \rangle \\
&= \varepsilon^{-1} \langle J \nabla_{x_0} H_\varepsilon + \varepsilon J D_{x_0}^2 H_\varepsilon x_1^u, \nabla_{x_0} H \rangle \\
&\quad + \langle x_1^u, D_{x_0}^2 H J \nabla_{x_0} H \rangle + \mathcal{O}(\varepsilon \|D^3 H_\varepsilon\| \|x_1^u\|^2 \|\dot{x}_0\|) \\
&= \langle J \nabla_{x_0} H_1, \nabla_{x_0} H \rangle + \mathcal{O}(\varepsilon (\|D^2 H_1\| \|x_1^u\| + \varepsilon \|D^3 H_\varepsilon\| \|x_1^u\|^2) \|\dot{x}_0\|) \\
&= \{H_1, H\}_{x_0(t+s)} + \varepsilon d_3 \mathcal{O}(\|x_1^u\| \|\dot{x}_0\| + \|x_1^u\|^2 \|\dot{x}_0\|)
\end{aligned}$$

where we have used the fact that $D^2 H$ is symmetric, J is antisymmetric, $d_3 := 2mgl \geq \sup \|D^3 H_\varepsilon\| + \|D^2 H_1\|$ and by $\mathcal{O}(h)$ we mean a quantity that is smaller, in absolute value, than h . The curly brackets stand for the so called *Poisson brackets* $(\{f, g\}_x = \langle J \nabla_x f, \nabla_x g \rangle)$. Accordingly,

$$\Delta^u(s, 0) = \int_{-\infty}^0 \{H_1, H\}_{x_0(\tau+s)} d\tau + \lim_{t \rightarrow -\infty} \Delta^u(s, t) + \varepsilon d_4 \mathcal{O}(1)$$

which implies¹⁹

$$\Delta^u(s, 0) = \int_{-\infty}^0 \{H_1, H\}_{x_0(\tau+s)} d\tau + \varepsilon d_4 \mathcal{O}(1).$$

In complete analogy one can obtain

$$\Delta^s(s, 0) = - \int_0^\infty \{H_1, H\}_{x_0(\tau+s)} d\tau + \varepsilon d_4 \mathcal{O}(1)$$

which implies

$$\Delta(s, 0) = \int_{-\infty}^\infty \{H_1, H\}_{x_0(\tau+s)} d\tau + \varepsilon d_4 \mathcal{O}(1). \quad (0.6.2)$$

The integral in (0.6.2) is called *Melnikov integral* and provides an expression, at first order in ε , of the distance between the stable and the unstable

¹⁸As we have already seen the Hamiltonian is given by $H_\varepsilon = \frac{1}{2l^2 m} p^2 - mgl \cos \theta - \varepsilon m \omega^2 l \cos \omega t \cos \theta := H_0 + \varepsilon H_1$, $H = H_0$, and, introducing the matrix

$$J = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ -1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}$$

(0.1.3) takes the more compact form

$$\dot{x} = J \nabla_x H_\varepsilon.$$

¹⁹Since $\lim_{t \rightarrow -\infty} \Delta^u(s, t) \leq \lim_{t \rightarrow -\infty} \varepsilon^{-1} \|x^u(s, t) - x_0(t+s)\| = 0$ by definition of unstable manifold.

manifold. All we are left with is to compute the integrals in (0.6.2). This turns out to be an exercise in complex analysis and it is left to the reader (see Problem 0.14), the results are:²⁰

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \{H_1(\cdot, \tau), H\}_{x_0(\tau+s)} d\tau = -8\pi m l \frac{\omega^4 e^{-\frac{\pi\omega}{2\omega_p}}}{\omega_p^2 (1 - e^{\frac{\pi\omega}{\omega_p}})} \sin \omega s + \mathcal{O}(d_4 \varepsilon).$$

We have thus gained very sharp control on the shape of the above manifolds.²¹ In particular they have a transversal intersection ε close to $\theta = 0$ and the angle at which they intersect is $\mathcal{O}(\varepsilon)$. These intersections are called *homoclinic* intersection and their very existence is responsible for extremely interesting phenomena as can be readily seen by trying to draw the stable and unstable manifolds (see Figure 0.3 for an approximate first idea); we will discuss this issue in detail shortly.²²

We have gained much more global information on the map T_ε , yet it does not suffice to answer our question. The next section is devoted to obtaining a really global picture. Up to now we have used mainly analytic tools. Next, geometry will play a much more significant rôle.²³

0.7 Global behavior (an horseshoe)

We want to explicitly construct trajectories with special properties. A standard way to do so is to start by studying the evolution of appropriate regions and to use judiciously the knowledge so gained. Let us see what this does mean in practice.

²⁰A simple computation yields:

$$\{H_1, H\}_{x_0(t+s)} = \frac{\omega^2}{l} p(t+s) \cos \omega t \sin \theta(t+s).$$

Then, by using (0.2.4) and looking at Problem 0.6, one readily obtains:

$$\{H_1, H\}_{x_0(t)} = 4lm\omega^2 \omega_p \frac{\cos \omega(t-s) \sinh \omega_p t}{(\cosh \omega_p t)^3}.$$

Finally, use Problem 0.14.

²¹Note that ε must be exponentially small with respect to ω . In many concrete problems (notably the so called *Arnold diffusion* [1]) it happens that this is not the case. One can try to solve such an obstacle by computing the next terms of the ε expansion of Δ . In fact, it turns out that it is possible to express Δ as a power series in ε with all the terms exponentially small in ω [1]. Yet this is a quite complex task far beyond our scopes.

²²Note that the intersection corresponds to an homoclinic orbit for the map T_ε (that is, an orbit which approaches the fixed point x_f both in the future and in the past). This is what it is left of the homoclinic orbit of the unperturbed pendulum.

²³What comes next it is the first example in this book of what it is loosely called a *dynamical argument*.

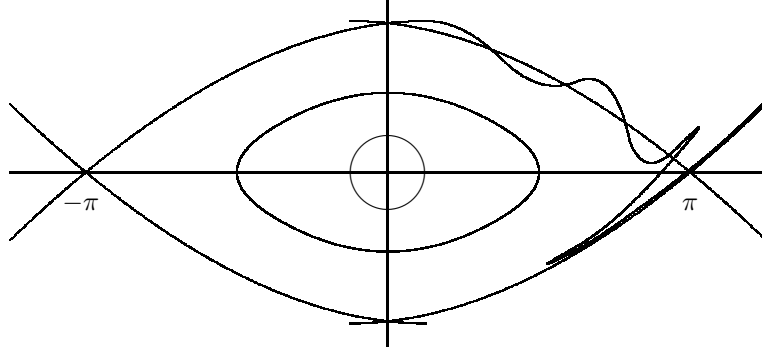


Figure 0.3: Perturbed pendulum

We start by gaining more control on the evolution of the points on the unstable manifold.

Since points on the unstable manifolds are pulled apart by the dynamics, the estimate must be done with a bit of care. In fact, we will use a way of arguing which is typical when instabilities are present, we will see many other instances of this type of strategy in the sequel.

For each x in the unstable manifold (zero included) let us call $D_x^u T_\varepsilon := D_x T_\varepsilon v^u(x)$, where $v^u(0) = v^u$ and if $x = x_\varepsilon^u(t)$ then $v^u(x) = \|\dot{x}_\varepsilon^u(t)\|^{-1} \dot{x}_\varepsilon^u(t)$, that is the derivative of the map computed along the unstable manifold.

Lemma 0.7.1 (Distortion) *For each x in the unstable manifold and $n \in \mathbb{N}$ such that $\|T_\varepsilon^n x\| \leq \frac{\delta_0}{4}$, holds²⁴*

$$e^{-\delta_0 C_*} \leq \left| \frac{D_0^u T_\varepsilon^n}{D_x^u T_\varepsilon^n} \right| \leq e^{\delta_0 C_*},$$

with $C_* = \frac{C_2}{4(1-\sigma^{-1})}$.

PROOF. The proof is a direct application of the chain rule:

²⁴This quantity is commonly called *Distortion* because it measures how much the map differs from a linear one (notice that if T is linear then $\frac{D_x T}{D_y T} = 1$). Although apparently an innocent quantity it is hard to overstate its importance in the study of hyperbolic dynamics.

$$\begin{aligned}
\left| \frac{D_0^u T_\varepsilon^n}{D_x^u T_\varepsilon^n} \right| &= \prod_{i=1}^n \left| \frac{D_0^u T_\varepsilon}{D_{T^i x}^u T_\varepsilon} \right| \\
&\leq \text{Exp} \left[\sum_{i=1}^n |\log(|D_0^u T_\varepsilon|) - \log(|D_{T^i x}^u T_\varepsilon|)| \right] \\
&\leq \text{Exp} \left[\sum_{i=1}^n C_2 \|T^i x\| \right]
\end{aligned}$$

Since we know (by the Hadamard-Perron Theorem) that for points z on the unstable manifold, and in $B_{\frac{\delta_0}{4}}(0)$, $\|T_\varepsilon z\| \geq \sigma^{-1} \|z\|$, it follows that $\|T^i x\| \leq \delta_0 \sigma^{n-i}$. Thus

$$\left| \frac{D_0^u T_\varepsilon^n}{D_x^u T_\varepsilon^n} \right| \leq \text{Exp} \left[\frac{C_2 \delta_0}{4(1 - \sigma^{-1})} \right].$$

The other inequality can be proven in exactly the same way. $\square$

A consequence of the above lemma is that

$$\|T_\varepsilon^n x_\varepsilon^u(t_0)\| \leq |D_z^u T^n| \|x_\varepsilon^u(t_0)\| \leq e^{\delta_0 C^*} \lambda_\varepsilon^n \|x_\varepsilon^u(t_0)\|,$$

where $z \in x_\varepsilon^u([0, t_0])$, and

$$\|T_\varepsilon^n x_\varepsilon^u(t_0)\| \geq e^{-\delta_0 C^*} \lambda_\varepsilon^n \|x_\varepsilon^u(t_0)\|.$$

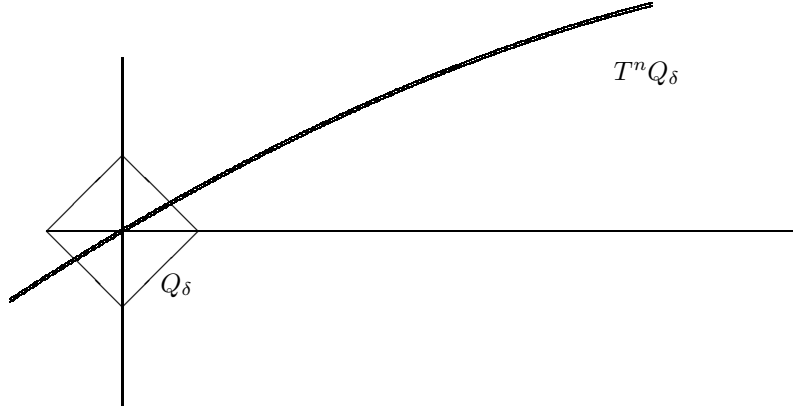
Next we would like to consider the evolution of a small box constructed around the fix point.

Consider the following small parallelogram: $Q_\delta := \{\xi \in \mathbb{R}^2 \mid \xi = av^u + bv^s \text{ for some } a, b \in [-\frac{\delta}{2}, \frac{\delta}{2}]\}$, $\delta \ll \delta_0$. Our first task is to understand the shape of $T_\varepsilon^n Q_\delta$. For each ξ in Q_{δ_0} let ξ^u be the closest point to ξ on the unstable manifold x_ε^u . Then it is easy to see the following.

Lemma 0.7.2 *For each $\xi \in Q_{\delta_0}$ holds*

$$\begin{aligned}
\|T_\varepsilon \xi - (T_\varepsilon \xi)^u\| &\leq 2\lambda_0^{-1} \|\xi - \xi^u\| \\
\|T_\varepsilon \xi^u - (T_\varepsilon \xi)^u\| &\leq d_6 \delta_0 \|\xi^u - \xi\|
\end{aligned}$$

PROOF. Consider $D_{\xi^u} T_\varepsilon$, such a matrix must have determinant one and maps the $v^u(\xi^u)$ onto the $v^u(T_\varepsilon \xi^u)$ direction expanding it by $D_{\xi^u}^u T_\varepsilon$, accordingly there must be another direction which is contracted by $(D_{\xi^u}^u T_\varepsilon)^{-1}$. Clearly such a direction must be close to v^s , let us call it w . We can then write $\xi - \xi^u = \alpha v^u(\xi^u) + \beta w(\xi^u)$. Since $w(\xi^u)$ will be closer that $d_7 \|\xi\|$ to v^s ,

Figure 0.4: The evolution of the small box Q_δ

which is the perpendicular direction to v^u in turns $d_7\|\xi\|$ close to $v^u(\xi^u)$, we have $\alpha \leq \beta d_7 \delta_0$.

$$\begin{aligned} T_\varepsilon \xi - T_\varepsilon \xi^u &= D_{\xi^u}^\varepsilon T_\varepsilon (\xi - \xi^u) + \mathcal{O}(C_2 \|\xi - \xi^u\|^2) \\ &= \nu_u \alpha v^u(T_\varepsilon \xi^u) + \beta D_{\xi^u}^\varepsilon T_\varepsilon w(\xi^u) + C_2 \mathcal{O}(\alpha^2 + \beta^2) \\ &= \nu_u \alpha v^u(T_\varepsilon \xi^u) + \nu^{-1} \beta w(T_\varepsilon \xi^u) + C_2 \mathcal{O}(\alpha^2 + \beta^2) + \mathcal{O}(2\nu^{-1} \beta^2 d_7) \end{aligned}$$

where $\nu := D_{\xi^u}^\varepsilon T_\varepsilon$. From the above estimates the Lemma readily follows. $\square$

Iterating the above estimates one can see that $T^n Q_\delta$ turns out to be a very thin coating of the unstable manifold, see Figure 0.4.

In particular by choosing n appropriately ($n = n_0 := \frac{\log \delta^{-1}}{\log \lambda_\varepsilon} + b$) we have that $T^n Q_\delta$ is contained in a ε neighborhood of the unstable manifold at the homoclinic intersection (choose $\delta^2 \lambda^b \leq \varepsilon$). Drawing a picture is immediately clear that $T^n Q_\delta \cap T^n Q_\delta \neq \emptyset$, moreover they intersect *transversally*.²⁵

This is all is needed to construct an horseshoe (see section ???). In particular, in our case it means that $T^{2n_0} Q_\delta \cap Q_\delta \neq \emptyset$, in fact the intersection are transversal and consist of three strips almost parallel to the unstable sides. One contains zero, and it is the least interesting for us, the other two cross above and below the unstable manifold respectively. The width of such strip is about δ^{-3} . We will discuss in the next chapters all the implications of this

²⁵The meaning of *transversally* is the following: the square Q_δ has two sides parallel to v^u (the unstable direction), which we will call unstable sides, and two sides parallel to v^s (the stable direction), which we will call stable sides. Then the intersection is transversal if it consists of a region with again four sides: two made of the image of the unstable sides and two made of images of stable sides of Q_δ .

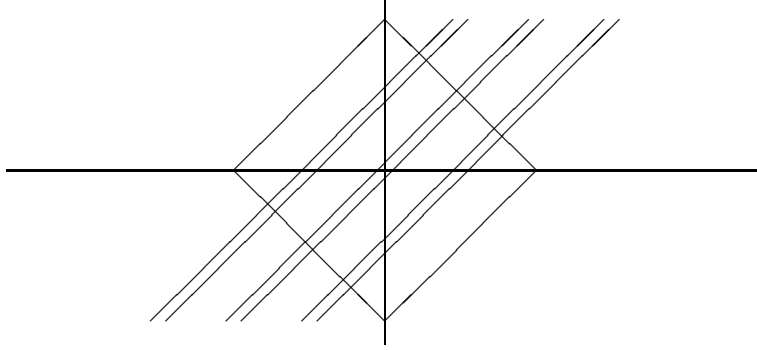


Figure 0.5: Horseshoe construction

situation, here it suffices to notice that if we have two initial conditions in $T^{-2n_0}Q_\delta \cap Q_\delta$ at a distance h , after $2n_0$ iterations the two points will be in Q_δ again but at a distance $h\varepsilon^{-1}$. Since to decide if after that there will be a rotation or an oscillation we need to know the final position with a precision of order δ , we need to know the initial position with a precision $\mathcal{O}(\delta\varepsilon) = \mathcal{O}(\delta^3)$.

Note that in the above construction we have lost almost all the points, only the ones that come back to Q_δ at time $2n_0$ are under control. Nevertheless, we can consider the set $\Lambda := \bigcup_{k \in \mathbb{Z}} \bigcap T_\varepsilon^{2kn_0} Q_\delta$. This is clearly a measure zero set, yet it is far from empty (it contains uncountably many points) and it is made of points that at times multiple of $2n_0$ are always in Q_δ . When they arrive in Q_δ they will rotate if they are above the separatrices and oscillate otherwise. Let us call this two subset of Q_δ R and O . Given a point $\xi \in Q_\delta$ we can associate to it the doubly infinite sequence $\sigma \in \{0, 1\}^{\mathbb{Z}}$ by the rule $\sigma_i = 1$ iff $T^{2n_0 i} \xi \in R$. The reader can check that the correspondence is onto.

0.8 Conclusion—an answer

If $\varepsilon = 10^{-6}$ and δ is a millimeter then we need to know the initial condition with a precision of 10^{-9} meters if we want to decide if the point will come back or rotate when it will get almost vertical again (this will happen in about 6 seconds). By the same token if we want to answer the same question, but for the second time the pendulum get close to the unstable position, we need to know the initial condition with a precision of the order 10^{-15} meters, and this just to predict the motion for about 12 seconds.²⁶

²⁶Remark that it is not just a matter of precision on the initial condition, it is also a matter of how one actually does the prediction. If the method is to integrate numerically the equation of motion, then one has to insure that the precision of the algorithm is of the

We can finally answer to our original question:

Answer: *NO!*

Nevertheless, as we mentioned at the beginning, the above answer it is not the end of the story. In fact, there exists many other very relevant questions that can be answered.²⁷ The rest of the book deals with a particular type of question: can we meaningfully talk about the *average behavior* of a system?

Problems

- 0.1** Derive the Lagrangian, Hamiltonian and equations of motions for a pendulum attached to a point vibrating with frequency ω and amplitude ε . (Hint: see [59, 41] on how to do such things. Remember that two Lagrangian that differ by a total time derivative give rise to the same equation of motions and are thus equivalent.)
- 0.2** Consider the systems of differential equations $\dot{x} = f(x)$, $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and f smooth and bounded. Prove that the associated flow form a group. (Hint: use the uniqueness of the solutions of the ordinary differential equation)
- 0.3** Consider the systems of differential equations $\dot{x} = f(x, t)$, $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and f smooth, bounded and periodic in t of period τ . Let ϕ^t be the associated flow. Define $T = \phi^\tau$, prove that $T^n = \phi^{n\tau}$.
- 0.4** Show that the hamiltonian is a constant of motion fro the pendulum. (Hint: Compute the time derivative)
- 0.5** Prove (0.2.4). (Hint: Write (0.2.3) in the integral form

$$t = \int_0^t \frac{\dot{\theta}(s)}{\sqrt{\frac{2g}{l}(1 + \cos \theta(s))}} ds.$$

Using some trigonometry and changing variable obtain

$$t = \int_0^{\theta(t)} \frac{1}{2\omega_p \cos \frac{\theta}{2}} d\theta.$$

order of 10^{-15} . This maybe achieved by working in double precision but if one wants to make predictions of the order of one minute it is quite clear that the numerical problem becomes very quickly intractable.

²⁷For example: which type of motions are possible? This is a *qualitative* question. Such type of questions give rise to the qualitative theory of Dynamical Systems [70, 51], an extremely important part of the theory of dynamical systems, although not the focus here.

and compute it.)

0.6 If $\theta(t)$ is the motion obtained in the previous problem, show that

$$\sin \theta(t) = 2 \frac{\sinh \omega_p t}{(\cosh \omega_p t)^2}; \quad \cos \theta(t) = \frac{2}{(\cosh \omega_p t)^2} - 1;$$

$$\cos^2 \frac{\theta(t) + \pi}{4} = \frac{1}{1 + e^{2\omega_p t}}.$$

0.7 Consider the systems of differential equations $\dot{x} = f(x, t)$, $x \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and f smooth. Suppose further that $\operatorname{div} f = 0$ (that is $\sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial f_i}{\partial x_i} = 0$). Show that the associated flow preserves the volume. (Hint: note that this is equivalent to saying that $|\det d\phi^t| = 1$, moreover by the group property and the chain rule for differentiating it suffices to check the property for small t . See that $d\phi^t = \operatorname{Id} + Df t + \mathcal{O}(t^2) = e^{Df t + \mathcal{O}(t^2)}$. Finally, remember the formula $\det e^A = e^{\operatorname{Tr} A}$.)

0.8 Let $T, T_1 : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^2$ be a smooth maps such that $T0 = 0$ and $\det(\mathbf{1} - D_0 T) \neq 0$. Consider the map $T_\varepsilon = T + \varepsilon T_1$ and show that, for ε small enough, there exists points $x_\varepsilon \in \mathbb{R}^2$ such that $T_\varepsilon x_\varepsilon = x_\varepsilon$. (Hint: Consider the function $F(x, \varepsilon) = x - T_\varepsilon x$ and apply the Implicit Function Theorem to $F = 0$.)

0.9 Let $x(t) \in \mathbb{R}^n$ be a smooth curve satisfying $\|\dot{x}(t)\| \leq c\|x(t)\| + a$, $x(0) = 0$ prove that

$$\|x(t)\| \leq \frac{a}{c}(e^{ct} - 1).$$

(Hint: Note that $\|x(t)\| \leq \int_0^t \|\dot{x}(s)\| ds$. Transform then the differential inequality into an integral inequality. Show that if $z(t) \leq 0$ and $z(t) \leq \int_0^t z(s) ds$, then $z(t) \leq 0$ for each t . Use the last fact to compare a function satisfying the obtained integral inequality with the solution of the associated integral equation.)

0.10 Given two by two matrices A, B such that A has eigenvalues $\lambda \neq \mu$, show that the matrix $A_\varepsilon = A + \varepsilon B$ has eigenvalues $\lambda_\varepsilon, \mu_\varepsilon$ such that $|\lambda_\varepsilon - \lambda| \leq \varepsilon \|B\|$? and $|\mu_\varepsilon - \mu| \leq \varepsilon \|B\|$?²⁸

0.11 Compute $D_0 T$. (Hint: solve (0.3.2) for $\varepsilon = 0$, $\theta = \pi$, $p = 0$ and $t = \frac{2\pi}{\omega}$.)

0.12 Compute $D_0 T_\varepsilon$ and see that, if ω is sufficiently large, the eigenvalues have modulus one (the unstable point becomes stable!).(Hint: setting

²⁸This is a very simple case of the very general problem of perturbation of point spectrum, see [49] (Kato) if you want to know more.

$\xi := \xi_1$ equation (0.3.2) yields $\ddot{\xi} = \omega_p^2 \xi + \varepsilon \frac{\omega^2}{t} \cos \omega t \xi$. It is then convenient to write $\xi := \bar{\xi} + \varepsilon \eta + \varepsilon^2 \zeta$ where $\ddot{\bar{\xi}} = \omega_p^2 \bar{\xi}$ and $\ddot{\eta} = \omega_p^2 \eta + \frac{\omega^2}{t} \cos \omega t \bar{\xi}$. One can look for a solution of the latter equation of the form

$$\bar{\eta} = Ae^{\omega_p t} \cos \omega t + Be^{\omega_p t} \sin \omega t + Ce^{-\omega_p t} \cos \omega t + De^{-\omega_p t} \sin \omega t.$$

This allows to compute $D_0 T_\varepsilon(\alpha, \beta) = (\xi_1(\frac{2\pi}{\omega}), \xi_2(\frac{2\pi}{\omega})) + \mathcal{O}(\varepsilon^2)$, where $(\xi_1(0), \xi_2(0)) = (\alpha, \beta)$. Finally one can verify that, for ε small and ω large enough the eigenvalues of $D_0 T_\varepsilon$ are imaginary, hence the equilibrium is linearly stable.)

0.13 Given an Hamiltonian $H : \mathbb{R}^2 \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, for each solution $x(t)$ of the associated equations of motion show that $\langle \nabla_{x(t)} H, \dot{x}(t) \rangle = 0$.

0.14 Compute the following integrals (0.6.2):

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}} e^{iat} (\cosh t)^{-n} \sinh t \, dt,$$

$a \in \mathbb{R}$ and $n \in \mathbb{N}$, $n > 1$.²⁹ (Hint: By a change of variable one can consider only the case $a > 0$. Consider the integral on the complex plane, show that the integral on the half circle $Re^{i\phi}$, $\phi \in [0, \pi]$, goes to zero as $R \rightarrow \infty$, then check that the poles of the integrand, on the complex plane, lie on the imaginary axis, finally use the residue theorem to compute the integrals.)

0.15 Do the same analysis carried out for the pendulum with a vibrating suspension point in the case of a pendulum subject to an external force $\varepsilon \cos \omega t$ and in presence of a small friction $-\varepsilon^2 \gamma \dot{\theta}$.

Notes

As already mentioned in the text the first to realize that the motions arising from differential equations can be very complex was probably Poincaré [72].

²⁹The result, for $a > 0$, is:

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}} e^{iat} (\cosh t)^{-n} \sinh t \, dt = 2\pi i \sum_{k=0}^{\infty} \frac{\phi_{n,k}^{(n-1)}(i \frac{2k+1}{2} \pi)}{(n-1)!},$$

where

$$\phi_{n,k}(z) = e^{iza} \sinh z \left(\frac{z - i \frac{2k+1}{2} \pi}{\cosh z} \right)^n.$$

For $n = 3$ the above formula yields

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}} e^{iat} (\cosh t)^{-3} \sinh t \, dt = \pi a^2 e^{-\frac{\pi}{2}a} (1 - e^{-\pi a})^{-1}.$$

At the time the main problem in celestial mechanics (the famous n -body problem) was to find all the integral of motion. Dirichlet and Weierstrass worked on this problem, but Poincaré was the first to rise serious doubt on the existence of such integrals (which would have implied regular motions). For more historical remarks see [67]. In fact, all the content of this chapter is inspired by the more sophisticated analysis in [67].